

Anger Under Constraint: Racial Resentment, Gender, and the Electoral Costs of Anger for Black Women Candidates

Abstract

How do voters respond when Black women candidates express anger—particularly when that anger is racialized? Using a preregistered survey experiment ($N \approx 5,000$) varying candidate race, gender, and emotional expression, we find that anger penalties for Black women are not universal but conditional. Racially resentful White voters substantially penalize an angry Black woman candidate, reducing predicted vote likelihood by half the scale in the non-racialized ($b = -0.51, p < .01$) and by nearly one-third in the racialized anger conditions ($b = -0.31, p < .10$). Even racially liberal White women, who initially reward non-racialized anger from the Black woman candidate, reduce their support once that anger is framed around racial injustice, revealing the fragility of cross-racial gender solidarity. Among Black respondents, community nationalists amplify support for the Black man candidate when he expresses racialized anger but provide no such reward for the Black woman candidate making an identical appeal. In sum, anger is not a freely available political resource for Black women candidates.

Keywords: race, gender, anger, intersectionality, Black politics

Word Count: 7779 words

Introduction

“I’m mad as hell and I’m not going to take it anymore!” In this famous line from the movie, “Network” (1976), news anchor Howard Beale delivers a passionate on-air rant, channeling public frustration into a call to action. The quote endures because it captures the political potential of anger, an emotion that can mobilize citizens, sharpen attention, and signal resolve (Brader 2005; Webster 2020). Yet anger is also politically risky. Candidates who display anger may be judged as unprofessional, unlikable, or unfit for leadership (Brooks 2013). Crucially, these risks may not always be distributed evenly. Some scholars argue that for women, anger violates gendered expectations of warmth and communality, rendering female candidates particularly vulnerable to backlash and trait-based attacks that challenge stereotypically feminine strengths (Eagly & Karau 2002; Rudman & Glick 1999). For Black candidates, anger, especially when expressed about racial injustice, reinforces stereotypes of aggression and fuels perceptions of racial threat (Banks and White 2024). In fact, many observers have long suspected that minority politicians must make a careful effort to not appear too strident or bellicose, to avoid losing the support of white voters (Phoenix 2019; Stephens-Dougan, 2020).

Real-world examples illustrate how these constraints operate. Commentators often attributed President Obama’s famously restrained demeanor to fears of being cast as the “angry Black man” (CNN 2010; Phoenix 2019). More recently, observers noted that former Vice President Kamala Harris emphasized “joy” during her presidential campaign, in part because anger was perceived to be politically unavailable to her (Blake 2024). These examples highlight how both Black men and Black women may have to navigate the narrow bounds of emotional expression, but leave open whether Black women face distinct electoral consequences when they express anger.

In this study, we test whether Black women face conditions of “double jeopardy” in evaluations of their political anger (Beal 1969). We suspect that Black women may be penalized for violating gendered expectations surrounding the expression of anger, and that they may also face heightened scrutiny when their anger is racialized. Importantly, this jeopardy cannot be understood by considering race and gender separately, as the expectations applied to Black women differ in kind from those applied to either Black people or women alone (Hancock 2007; Crenshaw 1991). Our study accordingly builds on a rich body of scholarship on Black women political elites, from research illuminating the particular challenges Black women face navigating overlapping systems of racial and gendered oppression (Brown and Lemi 2021), to work showing how Black women politicians leverage their unique experiences of marginalization to shape their policy agenda (Brown 2014).

Our study also complements existing research about the political consequences of anger (Banks and White 2024; Phoenix 2019; Brooks 2013). Banks and White (2024) and Phoenix (2019) demonstrate that anger is a political resource that is not equally available to Black and White politicians, but both of these studies give limited attention to gender; this leaves open the question of whether the consequences of anger for Black women candidates differ, not only from Black men, but also from those facing White women and White men. In contrast, Brooks (2013) provides a comprehensive treatment on gender and the political consequences of anger, but does so without attending to race. The result is a literature that has largely treated race and gender as independent axes or excluded Black women altogether, leaving the intersectional dynamics of anger largely unmeasured.

We address these gaps through a preregistered survey experiment ($N \approx 5,000$) in which candidate race, gender, and emotional expression were experimentally varied across a racially

diverse sample of White and Black Americans.¹ Our findings reveal a conditional double jeopardy for Black women, concentrated among racially resentful White voters and certain segments of the Black population. White respondents high in racial resentment impose the sharpest penalties, reducing support for an angry Black woman by half the vote likelihood scale in the general anger condition ($-0.51, p < .01$) and by nearly a third when her anger is racialized ($-0.31, p < .10$). Even among racially liberal White women, who initially reward a Black woman candidate for expressing non-racialized anger, support decreases once that anger is framed around racial injustice, revealing the fragility of cross-racial gender solidarity. Among Black respondents, perceived interconnectedness of sexism and racism leads respondents to extend greater support to the White woman candidate, but not the Black woman candidate for expressing racialized anger, consistent with the idea that White women candidates are rewarded for demonstrating allyship. Community nationalism amplifies support for the Black man candidate when he expresses racialized anger, but provides no such boost for the Black woman candidate expressing the same emotion. In short, this study demonstrates that anger is not a universally accessible political resource. The costs and benefits of anger are conditioned by the racial attitudes of White evaluators and by gendered ingroup expectations within the Black electorate alike.

Anger as a Conditional Political Resource

Anger is often understood as one of the most politically powerful emotions. Defined as a feeling of belligerence over a perceived slight or injustice, anger mobilizes participation, sharpens attention, and signals resolve and authenticity (Huddy, Feldman and Weber 2007;

¹ This design closely follows the design described in Section 4.21 of Banks and White (2024), with one notable extension: in addition to varying candidate race and emotional expression, we also varied candidate gender. The original Banks and White (2024) experiment held gender constant, depicting the candidate exclusively as male.

Marcus, Neuman, and MacKuen 2000; Valentino et al. 2011; Brader 2005; Banks, White, and McKenzie 2019). Politicians who display anger can use it strategically to highlight threats and demonstrate leadership (Webster 2020). Moreover, displays of anger can be advantageous for people in leadership positions (Van Kleef and De Dreu, 2010), as reflecting the emotions of their constituency engenders greater approval (Garcia and Stout, 2022; Stout et al, 2025).

Yet, emotional expressions are filtered through racial and gendered hierarchies that determine whose anger is seen as legitimate (Phoenix 2019). For women candidates, anger violates gendered expectations: role congruity theory holds that voters evaluate women through the lens of communal stereotypes—warmth, nurturance, and cooperation—while leadership is associated with agency and assertiveness (Eagly and Karau 2002). Women who display agentic emotions such as anger risk backlash for being “unfeminine” or unlikeable (Rudman and Glick 1999).

For Black candidates, expressions of anger, particularly when directed at racial injustice, reinforce longstanding stereotypes of Black aggression and partiality toward their ingroup. Moreover, Black men in particular, are often penalized for anger, given its association with aggression and violence (Banks and White 2024; Livingston and Pearce 2009). We therefore expect Black candidates to face sharper penalties than White candidates for expressing anger, especially among racially resentful voters.

Black women candidates stand at the intersection of these expectations (Cassese 2019; Hancock 2007). For example, one of the four archetypal tropes used to characterize Black women is the *angry Black woman*--or the “sapphire” (Harris-Perry 2011). Rooted in historical stereotypical projections of Black women as loud, aggressive, and irrational, this trope long predates Black women’s formal entry into electoral politics, functioning as a discursive

mechanism to invalidate their claims for reparative justice and to inhibit their political agency (Harris-Perry 2011; Beal 2008). Our study considers how the continued proliferation of this trope may constrain Black women political elites as it does their rank-and-file counterparts.

Crenshaw's (1991) authoritative treatise on intersectionality illuminates how Black women are multiplicatively disadvantaged by their placement at the nexus of interlocking and mutually reinforcing systems of racial, gendered, and class-based oppression. Beal (1969) further underscores how these systems enact distinct penalties on Black women, arguing that patriarchy and capitalism result in Black women incurring punishments both for not being white and for not being male. Crenshaw's characterization of the political dimension of intersectional disadvantage is especially relevant here. She posits that "women of color are situated within at least two subordinated groups that frequently pursue conflicting political agendas [...] a dimension of intersectional disempowerment that men of color and white women seldom confront" (Crenshaw 1991, p. 1252). Whereas Black women officeholders encounter this disempowerment when seeking to enter legislative coalitions or advance legislation bearing directly on Black women constituents (Brown 2014; Dowe 2023), we posit that even Black women's electoral prospects are constrained by their positioning at the intersection of voters' conflicting racialized and gendered expectations of candidates. This dynamic also illuminates what Cohen (1999) terms "secondary marginalization," or the way in which intersecting systems of power can subordinate Black women's distinct political needs even within communities ostensibly organized around racial justice.

Prior work further suggests that the political costs of anger may be especially acute when the content of that anger aligns with gendered and partisan stereotypes. Cassese and Holman (2018) show that female candidates, particularly Democratic women, are uniquely vulnerable to

stereotype-based attacks on issues closely associated with their party and gender, with negative electoral consequences that are substantially larger than those faced by male candidates.

Although their analysis focuses on voter responses to stereotype-consistent attacks, the underlying logic, that penalties intensify when candidate behavior activates entrenched expectations about “appropriate” issue positions, suggests that similar dynamics may apply when candidates themselves engage those issues. To the extent that a Black woman candidate’s expression of anger about racial injustice activates gendered and partisan stereotypes, racialized anger may therefore be especially costly for Black women candidates, even when comparable expressions carry fewer penalties for others.

These competing pressures make Black women a critical test case for understanding under what conditions anger functions as a political resource. As women, they may be penalized for violating gender norms of warmth and civility; as Black candidates, for reinforcing racial stereotypes (Carr 2025). Yet their dual marginalization may also render them less prototypical of either group, potentially muting backlash under some conditions (Sesko and Biernat 2010). The stakes are particularly high given Black women’s distinctive position in the electorate: despite voting at higher rates than Black men (Center for American Women and Politics, 2025; Census Bureau 2024) and providing more robust support for the Democratic Party (Slaughter, Crowder, and Greer 2024; Smooth 2006), Black women remain disproportionately underrepresented in office despite high rates of success when they run (Center for American Women and Politics & Higher Heights Leadership Fund, 2025). This paradox—high participation, low representation—may reflect longstanding patriarchal presumptions that attending to gender disparities is at odds with the overarching goal of eradicating racial inequality (Simien 2005; Beal 1969).

In addition to candidate identity, we therefore expect responses to candidates' anger to vary based on voter identity. Among Black respondents, anger about racial injustice can serve as a cue of authenticity and solidarity, signaling a candidate's commitment to shared concerns (Wamble 2024). Yet, these signals may not be interpreted uniformly. Guided by Hancock's (2007, p. 251) assertion that categorial groups such as race and gender contain "within-group diversity that sheds light on the way we think of groups as actors in politics and on the potential outcomes of any particular political intervention," we explore variations in how Black prospective voters differentially evaluate anger from Black men and women candidates, respectively.

Specifically, we examine two attitudinal moderators: perceived interconnectedness of sexism and racism (ICSR) and community nationalism. We operationalize ICSR as respondents' belief that Black women have faced discrimination on both race and gender axes simultaneously. While intersectionality as a theoretical framework encompasses class, sexuality, and other axes of identity (Crenshaw 1991; Hancock 2007), our measure captures a specific dimension of that consciousness directly relevant to our hypotheses. Black respondents high in ICSR exhibit a critical awareness of how the intersection of race and gender may constrain Black women and may be especially inclined to reward Black women for expressing anger about racial inequality, viewing such expressions as cultivating solidarity along both race and gender lines (Crowder 2022; Greenwood 2008). Recent research indicates that relative to Democratic Black men politicians, Democratic Black women politicians are more likely to discuss substantive public policy issues and to frame them as raced and gendered (Dowe 2023; Strawbridge et al. 2025), suggesting that ICSR-conscious voters may be especially attuned to, and rewarding of such framing. By contrast, we expect Black individuals who are not ICSR conscious to be less likely

to reward Black women for expressions of anger over racial disparity relative to their male counterparts.

We also examine the degree to which adherence to community nationalism, which emphasizes Black political and economic self-determination, shapes evaluations of shared-race political figures across gender. Drawing on Cohen's (1999, p.15) thesis that "identities of gender, class and race [...] intersect and are manipulated by dominant institutions" in ways that subordinate Black women's distinct priorities even within Black political communities, we anticipate conditions in which Black prospective voters will not favor Black women to the same degree as their male counterparts. As Alexander-Floyd (2003) notes, community nationalism is often tied to patriarchal understandings of Black leadership; thus, Black respondents high in community nationalism may privilege Black men as the authentic bearers of racial grievance.

Finally, we expect voter gender to condition evaluations of candidates who display anger. While women may be more sympathetic to anger from women candidates, particularly when it reflects concerns about injustice, White women may also feel incentivized to enforce gendered norms of warmth and civility as a means of reinforcing a system from which they derive a perceived benefit (Junn 2017; Frasure-Yokley 2018). We therefore examine voter gender as an additional moderator alongside voter race and racial resentment.

In sum, we contend that anger is a conditional political resource. For Black women in particular, its effectiveness depends on the expectations voters bring to their evaluations, expectations shaped by racial resentment, intraracial gender norms, and the enduring legibility of the Angry Black Woman trope. Anger is not judged in a vacuum, but rather, anger is interpreted through deeply entrenched assumptions about who is permitted to express it, and under what circumstances.

Hypotheses

Our hypotheses follow from these theoretical expectations, organized by respondent race:

White Respondents

H1 (Black woman anger penalty):

White respondents will be less likely to support a Black woman candidate when she expresses anger—especially racialized anger—compared to both a neutral (non-angry) condition and to non-racialized anger.

H2 (Racial resentment as moderator):

Among White respondents, higher levels of racial resentment will be associated with lower support for Black candidates who express anger, with the strongest negative effect observed for the Black woman candidate expressing racialized anger.

Black Respondents

H3 (Ingroup emotional reward):

Black respondents will express greater support for Black candidates—relative to White candidates—when they express anger about racial disparities.

H4a (Community nationalism moderator):

Higher community nationalism will be associated with increased support for the Black man candidate expressing racialized anger, but not the Black woman candidate.

H4b (Perceived interconnectedness of sexism and racism moderator):

Among Black respondents, higher perceived interconnectedness of sexism and racism (ICSR) will be associated with increased support for the Black woman candidate expressing racialized anger—both relative to the Black woman candidate in the control condition, and relative to the other candidates in the racialized anger condition.

Research Design

We test our theoretical expectations using a preregistered survey experiment conducted in Spring 2021 with approximately 5,000 respondents recruited through Qualtrics, evenly divided between Black and White Americans.^[2] The experiment employed a fully crossed 2 x 2 x 3 factorial design varying candidate race (Black/White), gender (man/woman), and emotional expression (no anger, nonracial anger about the economy, or racialized anger about racial disparities). This design isolates the causal effects of candidate identity and anger type on vote likelihood and trait evaluations, and assesses how these effects are moderated by respondents' racial resentment, perceptions of the interconnectedness of sexism and racism, community nationalism, and gender.

Table A2 in Appendix A.3 provides a descriptive overview of the sample, split between White and Black respondents. Among White respondents, the average age was approximately 50, roughly 43% held a bachelor's degree or higher, 56% were women, and only 43% identified as Democrat. Black respondents were younger (approximately 40 on average), less educated (33% held a bachelor's degree or higher), similarly composed of women (57%), and far more likely to identify as Democrat (about 74%).

Respondents first completed questions on demographics, political orientations, and attitudes about race and gender. White participants answered the standard four-item racial resentment scale (Kinder and Sanders 1996), while Black participants completed measures of community nationalism and perceptions of the interconnectedness of racism and sexism faced by Black women.

Participants were then randomly assigned to read a mock news article attributed to a fictional local outlet. The article described a Democratic candidate's announcement of a U.S

Senate bid. The candidate's race (Black or White), gender (man or woman), and emotional expression were manipulated between subjects by varying the candidate's name, photograph, and the content of the article. All other features of the article—the outlet, the date, the setting, the candidate's educational background, and prior professional experience were held constant across conditions.

In the control condition, the candidate framed the Senate bid around the need for strong leadership and cited a general list of issues, including student loan debt and a struggling economy, without expressing anger or attributing those issues to any specific cause. In the non-racialized anger condition, the candidate explicitly claimed anger as a motivation (“I am angry. Our country is not in good shape. Yes, I am angry about it, and I won’t stop being angry until we fix it”) and embraced the characterization of an angry candidate (“I will gladly accept the mantle of this year’s angry candidate”). The issues cited as the source of anger (student loan debt and a weak economy) were identical to those in the control condition, with no racial framing. In the racialized anger condition, the candidate used the same anger language but explicitly attributed it to racial disparities: the article noted that the candidate “recited a litany of race-related issues Americans should be angry about,” including racial gaps in student loan debt and unemployment with specific reference to Black Americans bearing disproportionate burdens relative to their White counterparts.

Across conditions, the emotional expression language was held constant between the two anger conditions—only the racial content of the issues varied. This design isolates the effect of racialized content specifically, rather than confounding it with differences in the degree or style of anger expressed. The control condition establishes a non-angry baseline against which both anger conditions can be compared. Non-racialized anger tests whether Black women face a

gender-based anger penalty independent of racial content. Racialized anger (racial disparities) tests whether, and for whom, the racial content of anger compounds any penalty, activating racial threat or solidarity cues. This design is similar to Banks and White (2024). However, we add gender as an additional identity dimension, and we examine how reactions to candidate anger vary by respondents' own race and gender.²

Our primary dependent variable is vote likelihood, measured on a seven-point scale ("How likely would you be to vote for [candidate]?"), rescaled from 0–1 for analysis. Secondary dependent variables capture stereotype-based trait attributions, including perceptions of competence and qualification, similarly rescaled. The main comparisons evaluate whether White respondents penalize the Black woman candidate who expresses anger, and whether these effects vary by racial resentment and gender (H1–H2). Among Black respondents, we test whether support for Black candidates who express racialized anger increases relative to White candidates. We also test whether support for the Black woman candidate is moderated by perceptions of interconnectedness of sexism and racism (ICSR) or moderated by adherence to community nationalism (CN) was measured as agreement (0–1) with four statements emphasizing Black autonomy and control over economic and political life in predominantly Black communities.

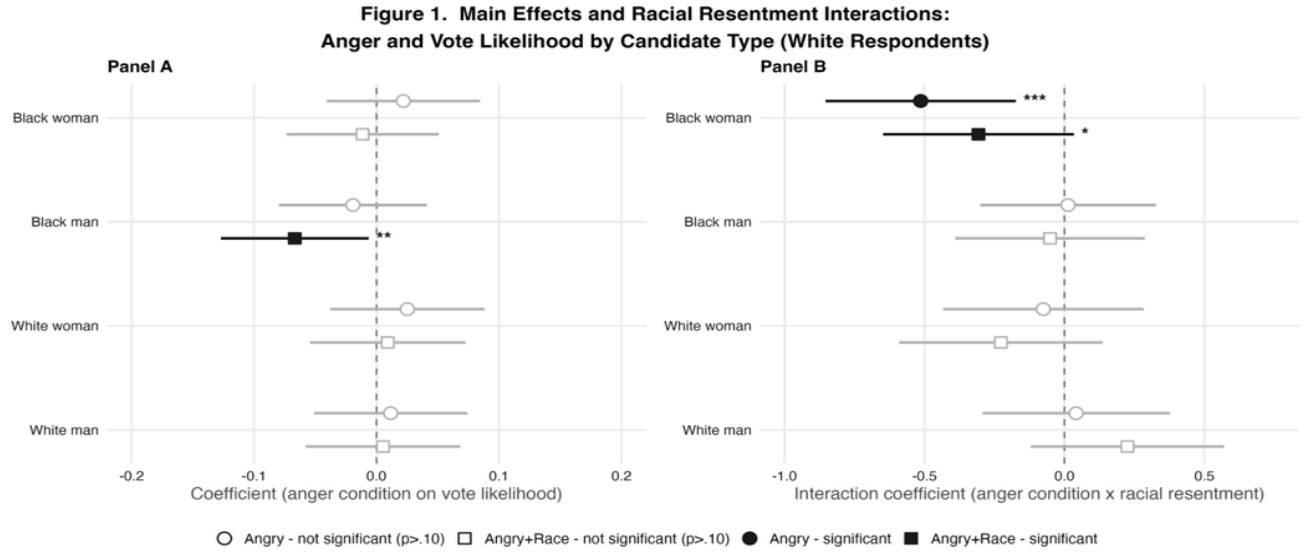
ICSR was measured with a single item asking respondents which statement best reflected their view: (1) "Black women have suffered from both sexism within the Black movement and racism within the women's movement," (2) "Black women mostly suffer from the same types of problems as Black men," (3) "Neither," or (4) "Both." Responses were scaled 0–1, with higher values indicating greater ICSR.

² The full treatments are available in the supplementary materials.

Admittedly, single-item measures carry well-known reliability limitations, particularly for complex attitudinal constructs. Our ICSR item captures a targeted theoretical dimension, respondents' belief that Black women face simultaneous discrimination on the basis of both race and gender, rather than the full construct of intersectional consciousness. The use of a single item was a deliberate design choice aimed at minimizing respondent burden while isolating the specific belief most directly relevant to our hypotheses. We note this as a limitation and encourage future work to develop and validate a multi-item scale that captures intersectional consciousness more comprehensively

Results

We begin by evaluating whether candidates are penalized for expressing anger and whether such penalties vary by the race and gender of the candidate, as well as the racial content of their anger. Figure 1 presents results for White respondents across two panels. Panel A addresses the first-order question: do anger treatments move vote likelihood on average, and do those effects differ by candidate type? Panel B addresses the conditional question: does racial resentment amplify or attenuate those effects, and does that moderation differ by candidate type?



Note: Points = OLS coefficients; bars = 95% confidence intervals. ● non-racial anger condition (Angry); ■ racialized anger condition (Angry+Race). Filled = statistically significant; open = $p > .10$. Panel A: main effects of anger on vote likelihood relative to the control condition (Appendix Table B1, cols 1–4). Panel B: interaction between anger condition and racial resentment; estimates to the left of zero indicate that higher racial resentment is associated with lower vote likelihood for an angry candidate relative to the control condition (Appendix Table B2, cols 1–4). * $p < .10$ ** $p < .05$ *** $p < .01$

Turning first to Panel A: each point estimate represents the average change in vote likelihood associated with exposure to an anger treatment relative to the control condition, without conditioning on racial resentment. Circles denote the non-racialized anger condition; squares denote the racialized anger condition. The most striking feature of Panel A is its near-uniform flatness. For three of the four candidates—the Black woman, White woman, and White man—neither anger condition produces an estimate meaningfully distinguishable from zero. All coefficients cluster tightly around the null, with confidence intervals that span both sides of the zero reference line. These results indicate that, on average, White respondents neither penalize nor reward these candidates for expressing anger, regardless of its racial content. For the Black man candidate alone, racialized anger produces a statistically significant decline in

vote likelihood ($b = -0.07$, $p < .05$). This result suggests that racialized anger carries electoral costs for Black male candidates among White respondents on average, even in the absence of moderation by racial resentment. H1, which predicted a unique anger penalty for the Black woman candidate, is not supported in the main effects.

It is worth noting, however, that the absence of a main effect for the Black woman candidate does not imply that she is insulated from electoral penalties for anger. As we show in Panel B, the null average effect conceals substantial heterogeneity: racially liberal and racially resentful White respondents move in opposite directions in response to the Black woman's anger, producing a near-zero net effect that masks the conditional penalty at the core of our argument.

Specifically, Panel B plots the conditional effect of racial resentment on vote likelihood across all four candidate types simultaneously. Each point represents the degree to which racial resentment amplifies or attenuates the anger penalty for a given candidate, with estimates to the left of the zero reference line indicating that higher racial resentment is associated with lower vote likelihood for an angry candidate relative to a non-angry one. Circles denote the non-racialized anger condition; squares denote the racialized anger condition.

For the Black woman candidate, both interaction terms are negative and statistically significant, indicating that racial resentment meaningfully conditions how White respondents evaluate her anger. In the non-racialized anger condition, the interaction coefficient is -0.51 ($p < .01$), indicating that racially resentful White voters substantially discount the Black woman candidate when she expresses anger about the economy—an expression with no explicit racial content. The racialized anger condition produces a similarly signed, if somewhat attenuated, estimate ($b = -0.31$, $p < .10$). No analogous pattern emerges for any other candidate. The Black

man, White woman, and White man all produce interaction estimates that are statistically indistinguishable from zero.

Together, the two panels of Figure 1 tell a two-part story that speaks directly to the conditionality at the heart of our theoretical argument. On average, anger does not cost the Black woman candidate, but this average conceals a meaningful divide. Among racially liberal White respondents, expressing anger does not hurt and may even help her; among racially resentful White respondents, the same expression produces a substantial electoral penalty. The cost of anger for Black women is not a generalized anger-in-politics penalty, a gender penalty, or a race penalty operating in isolation—it is specific to the intersection of race and gender, activated by the racial attitudes of White evaluators, and invisible in any analysis that does not account for that conditionality. These findings provide direct support for H2.

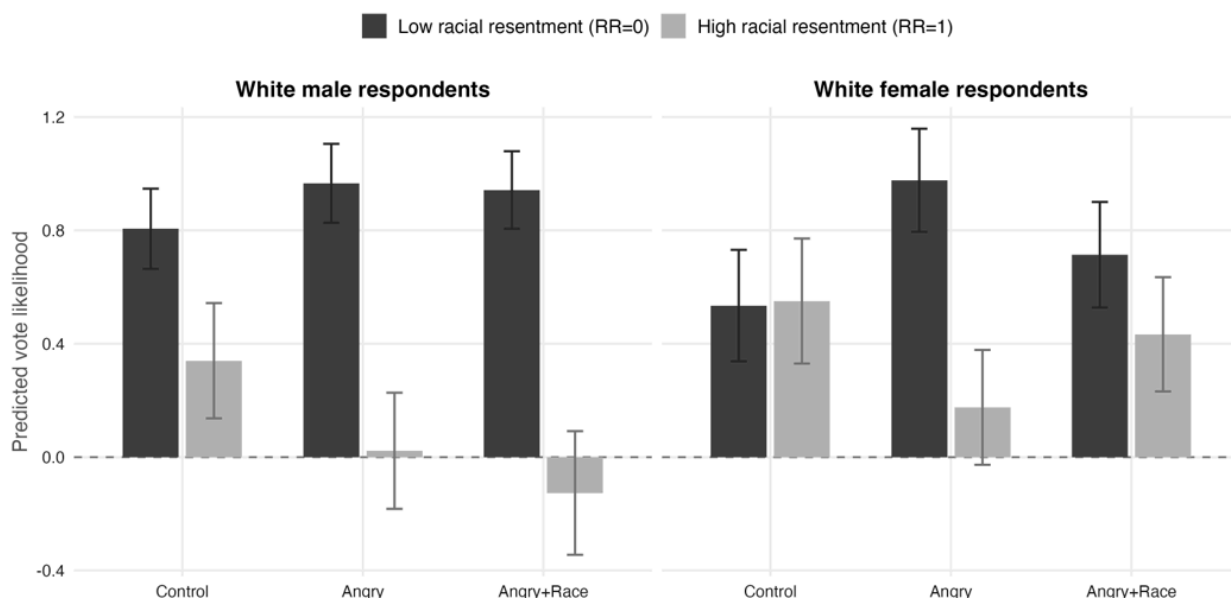
One feature of Panel B warrants additional comment. The interaction effect is somewhat larger in the non-racialized anger condition ($b=-0.51$) than in the racialized anger condition ($b=-0.31$), a pattern that runs counter to what one might initially expect. If racially resentful respondents are most reactive to explicit invocations of race, the racialized anger condition should, by that logic, draw the steeper penalty. That it does not suggests a more nuanced dynamic. When a Black woman expresses anger about the economy, racially resentful respondents may have no available interpretive frame other than the Angry Black Woman trope itself—the expression cannot be dismissed as racial self-interest, and the absence of an alternative frame leaves the trope to do the full interpretive work. Racialized anger, by contrast is more legible, if still unwelcome: it confirms preexisting expectations that Black politicians prioritize racial grievance. This dynamic carries an ironic implication for candidate strategy. Race-neutral emotional appeals, often recommended as a way to avoid triggering racial threat among White

voters, may in fact amplify penalties for Black women specifically—not because they invoke race, but because they leave racial stereotypes unconstrained by any competing interpretive anchor.

Having established that the anger penalty for Black women among White respondents is conditional on racial resentment, we turn next to whether this conditionality operates differently across gender lines. Previous research, for example, has shown that White men are especially receptive to explicit racial cues (Hutchings, Walton, Benjamin 2010), so it is plausible that racially resentful White men are more likely than racially resentful White women to penalize a Black woman candidate for an emotional display of anger.

Figure 2 disaggregates the predicted vote likelihood for the Black woman candidate by respondent gender, plotting estimates at the lowest possible level of racial resentment (racial resentment = 0) and the highest possible level of racial resentment (racial resentment = 1), separately for White male and White female respondents across all three conditions. The dark gray bars reflect predicted vote likelihood among racially liberal respondents; the light gray bars reflect predictions among racially resentful respondents.

Figure 2. Predicted Vote Likelihood for the Black Woman Candidate by Anger Condition, Racial Resentment, and Respondent Gender (White Respondents)



Note: Bars = predicted vote likelihood at low (RR=0, dark) and high (RR=1, light) racial resentment; error bars = 95% confidence intervals. Values below zero are model-implied and reflect near-total withdrawal of support among high-resentment respondents. Predictions derived from models reported in Appendix Table B3. * $p < .10$ ** $p < .05$ *** $p < .01$

The left panel, which displays the results for White male respondents, tells a relatively straightforward story. Among racially liberal White men, the Black woman candidate performs well across all three conditions, with predicted vote likelihood remaining high whether she expresses no anger, non-racialized anger, or racialized anger. Among racially resentful White men, however, the picture changes sharply. Even in the control condition, racially resentful White men are considerably less likely to support the Black woman candidate than their racially liberal counterparts. That gap widens dramatically in the anger conditions: in both the non-racialized and racialized anger conditions, predicted vote likelihood among racially resentful White men falls to or below zero, indicating near-total withdrawal of support. Any expression of

anger expressed by the Black woman candidate, whether racialized or not, is effectively disqualifying among racially resentful White men.

The right panel displays the results for White female respondents. In the control condition, White women show relatively little variation by racial resentment. Racially liberal and racially resentful White women evaluate the Black woman candidate at comparable levels, suggesting that in the absence of an anger cue, shared gender identity produces something approximating baseline parity. The non-racialized anger condition, however, disrupts this equilibrium in a striking way. Racially liberal White women respond to the Black woman's economic anger with a substantial boost in support, consistent with a gender solidarity interpretation in which an angry woman candidate is seen as forceful and credible. Racially resentful White women by contrast respond to the same expression with a sharp decline. In sum, women at the low end of the racial resentment scale handsomely reward non-racialized anger from the Black woman candidate and women at the high end of the racial resentment scale severely penalize non-racialized anger from the Black woman candidate.

Will we observe a similar divergence in vote preferences among White women when the Black woman candidate's anger is about racial disparities? Racially liberal women, if anything, should be favorably inclined to vote for a Black woman candidate who is indignant about racial disparities that are negatively affecting the Black community. Conversely, we might expect that White women who are high in racial resentment will penalize the Black woman candidate in the racialized anger condition. Surprisingly, the pattern of results indicates that rather than a sharp divergence in the likely votes of White women low and high in racial resentment, the gap between the two groups actually *narrows* when exposed to the Black woman candidate in the racialized anger condition.

Among racially liberal White women, support for the Black woman candidate falls noticeably relative to the non-racialized anger condition. This pattern suggests that anger about racial disparities disrupts the boost the Black woman candidate receives from those white female voters predisposed to be more supportive (low racial resentment respondents). The boost that non-racial anger produced does not survive when the anger is directed at racial disparities. The two bars converge—racially liberal and racially resentful White women end up at more similar predicted values in the Angry + Race condition than in the non-racialized anger condition.

In other words, our results indicate that gender solidarity is not unconditional. Gender solidarity extends to a Black woman who expresses anger about the economy but attenuates, among even the most racially liberal White women, when her anger makes an explicitly racial claim. This pattern is consistent with a broader literature suggesting that cross-racial coalitions among women are fragile precisely at the point where racial and gender interests diverge (Crowder and Smith 2020).

This finding also complicates findings from recent work suggesting that in an era of heightened racial strife in the post-Obama era racially liberal Whites are showing increased support for Black political figures as part of their desire to combat racism (Mikkelborg 2025). While our results affirm that racially liberal Whites may indeed be more supportive of Black candidates at baseline, this support appears to be conditional. In particular, racialized anger emerges as a threshold that some ostensibly supportive voters are unwilling to cross.

A more charitable interpretation of these results, however, is that racially liberal White women may penalize the Black woman candidate when she is angry about racial disparities not because they reject the candidate's message, but because they perceive her racialized anger as politically risky, a sign that she lacks strategic savvy, mainstream appeal, or broader electability.

From this perspective, the vote penalty is not necessarily a rejection of the candidate's message, but a judgment about how it will be received by others (see also Hassell and Visalvanich 2024).

Therefore, we explore whether the vote penalty observed among low racial resentment White women for the Black woman expressing racialized anger might be explained by perceptions of her as less electable. While our survey does not include a direct measure of electability, we asked respondents to indicate whether words such as “competent” and “unqualified,” described the candidates, which we use as proxies for perceived electability. Subsequently, we conducted a mediation analysis among White women, focusing on those at the lowest and highest quartiles of racial resentment, to assess whether perceptions of electability help explain the relationship between candidate anger and vote choice. The mediators were perceptions that the candidate was *unqualified* or *competent*.

The results provide limited evidence that these perceptions of electability explain differences in vote likelihood. Among low racial resentment White women, exposure to the Black woman expressing racialized anger slightly increased perceptions that she was *unqualified*, which in turn very modestly reduced their likelihood of voting for her (ACME = -0.022 , $p < .10$) (See Appendix C Table C1). However, perceptions of competence did not mediate the effect, and there were no significant direct effects of the treatment on vote likelihood. For high racial resentment White women, neither mediator was significant.

Altogether, these results indicate that while perceptions of being *unqualified* play a minor role in shaping low resentment women’s reactions, they do not fully account for why low and high racial resentment White women respond similarly to the Black woman’s racialized anger. Rather, the similarity appears to arise from different mechanisms that converge on comparable

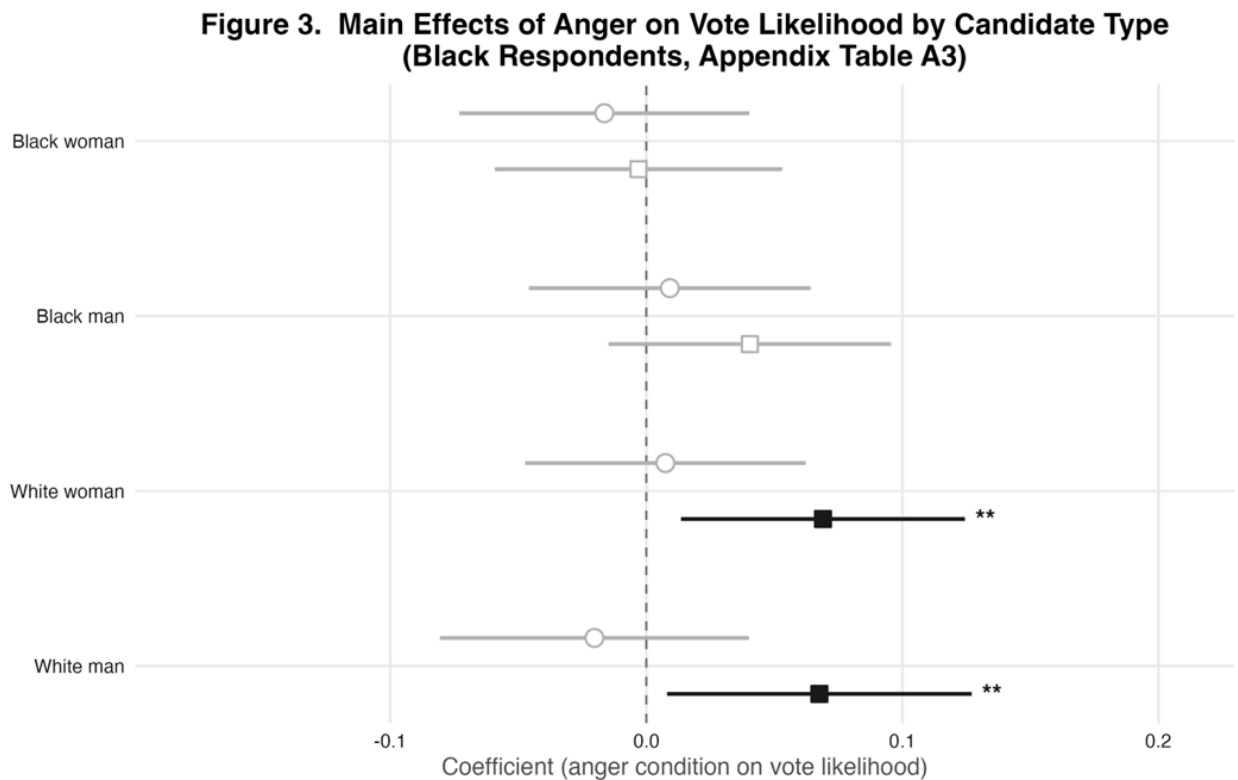
vote likelihoods: low resentment women exact an electability penalty, while high resentment women's baseline opposition leaves little room for additional change.

Overall, the results for White respondents indicate that when courting White voters, it is risky for a Black woman candidate to express anger, particularly about race. Among racially resentful White men, a Black woman's expression of racialized anger results in a sharp electoral penalty, reducing her vote likelihood by over half a point on a 0–1 scale ($b = -0.60, p < .05$). Even non-racialized anger is punished ($b = -0.48, p < .05$), underscoring that anger is politically costly for Black women in the eyes of White men with the highest levels of racial resentment. Among White women, the patterns are more nuanced. Racially liberal White women reward the Black woman candidate when she expresses non-racialized anger ($b = 0.44, p < .01$), but this boost does not survive when her anger is directed at racial disparities—predicted support among low-resentment White women decreases, narrowing the gap between low-resentment White women and their high-resentment counterparts. In short, solidarity from White women is fragile, and emotional expression—especially when tied to race—can undermine that support.

We do not find support for H1, which predicted that the Black woman candidate would lose electoral support from White voters overall when she expressed anger, particularly racialized anger. However, H2 is supported: higher levels of racial resentment are associated with significantly reduced support for the Black woman candidate when she expresses anger. The negative effects of racialized anger were especially consequential among racially resentful White men respondents, and counterintuitively, among racially liberal White women.

Black respondents: Counterintuitive influences of perceived connectedness of sexism and racism and community nationalism

We turn next to Black respondents. Figure 3 presents the main effects of the anger treatments on vote likelihood across all four candidate types among Black respondents, providing a direct test of H3. As in Panel A of Figure 1, each point estimate represents the average change in vote likelihood associated with exposure to an anger treatment relative to the control condition, without conditioning on any attitudinal moderator. Circles denote the non-racialized anger condition; squares denote the racialized anger condition.



Note: Points = OLS coefficients; bars = 95% CI. ● non-racial anger condition; ■ racialized anger condition. Filled = statistically significant; open = $p > .10$. Models estimated among Black respondents only. Full model estimates reported in Appendix Table B4.

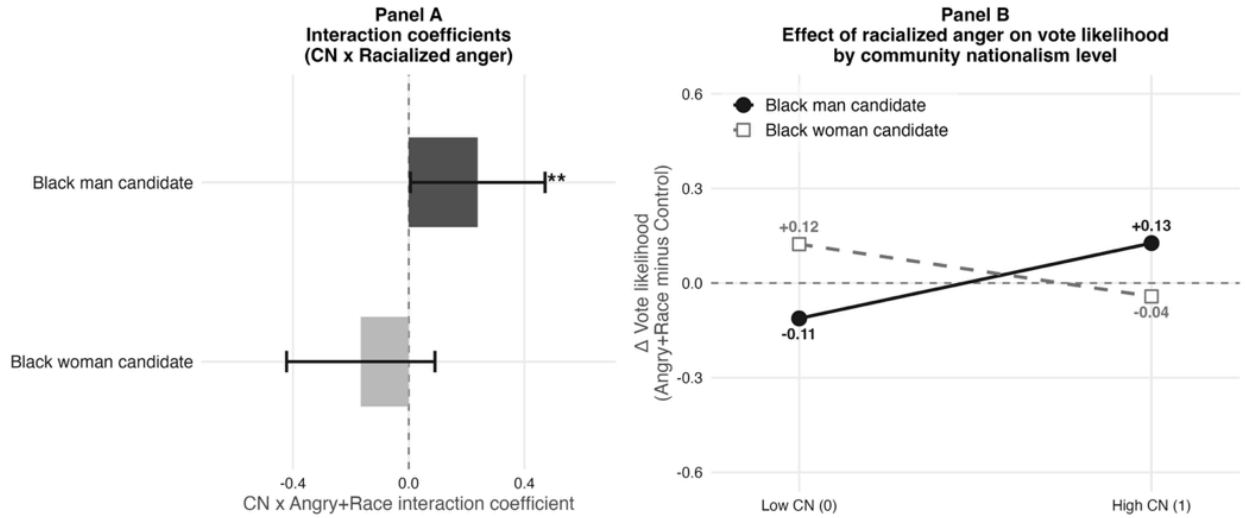
** $p < .05$

The most striking feature of Figure 3 is that it inverts the pattern one might expect from H3. The estimates for the Black candidates cluster tightly around zero across both conditions, consistent with a ceiling effect: baseline support for both Black candidates among Black respondents is already extremely high, leaving little room for emotional cues to further boost support. H3 is not supported.

The significant results instead accrue to the White candidates. Both the White woman and White man candidates receive a statistically significant boost in support when they express racialized anger ($b=0.07$, $p<.05$ for each), while their non-racialized anger conditions remain indistinguishable from zero. This pattern is theoretically important: it suggests that among Black respondents, racialized anger does not function as an ingroup solidarity cue that rewards co-racial candidates—it functions instead as an allyship signal that rewards White candidates who visibly align themselves with Black political concerns.

Figure 4 examines whether community nationalism, a commitment to racial group solidarity and uplift, moderates how Black respondents evaluate candidates who express racialized anger. The figure presents two complementary panels. The left panel displays the interaction coefficients for the Community Nationalism x Angry + Race term for the Black man and Black woman candidates, with point estimates and 95% confidence intervals. The right panel displays the difference in predicted vote likelihood between the racialized anger condition and the control condition at the lowest level (Community Nationalism = 0) and the highest level (Community Nationalism = 1)—isolating the effect of racialized anger specifically, net of the main effect of community nationalism.

Figure 4. Community Nationalism and the Effect of Racialized Anger on Vote Likelihood for Black Candidates (Black Respondents)



Note: Panel A = CN × Angry+Race interaction coefficients ± 95% CI. Dark/filled = statistically significant; light/open = $p > .10$.

Panel B = change in predicted vote likelihood between the racialized anger condition and the control condition at low (CN=0)

and high (CN=1) community nationalism; error bars = 95% CI. Positive values indicate racialized anger increases vote likelihood relative to control; negative values indicate a decrease. Solid line (●) = Black man candidate; dashed line (□) = Black woman candidate. Predictions derived from Appendix Table B5, cols 1–2. * $p < .10$ ** $p < .05$

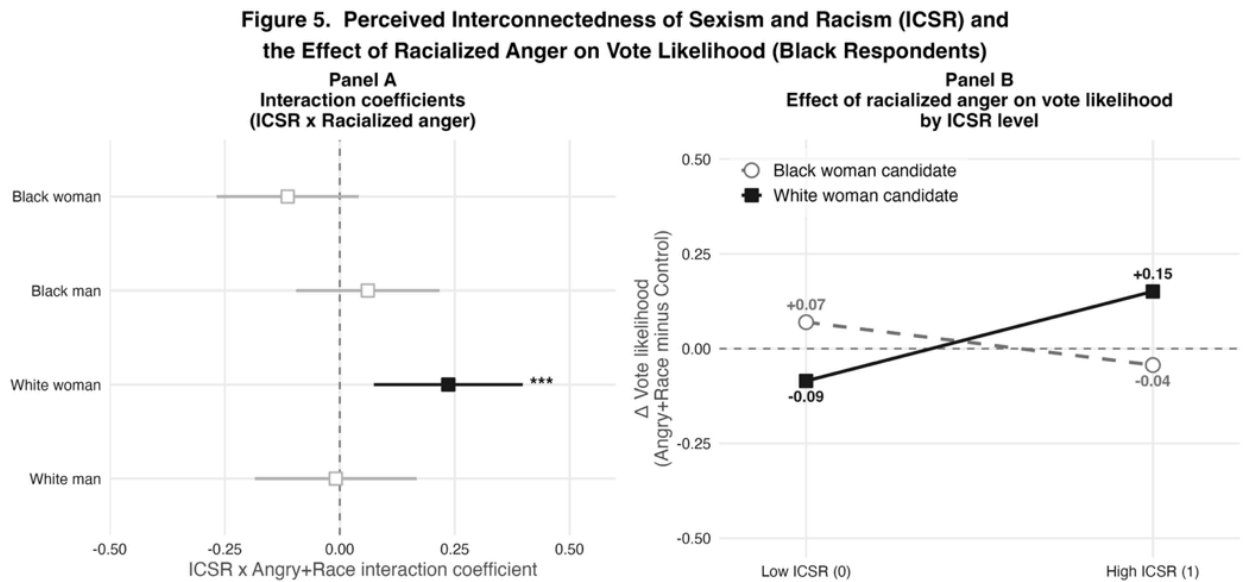
The left panel reveals a sharp asymmetry in the direction of the interaction terms. For the Black man candidate, community nationalism significantly amplifies the effect of racialized anger. The Community Nationalism x Angry+Race interaction is positive and statistically significant ($b = 0.24$, $p < .05$), indicating that Black respondents high in community nationalism are more likely to support him when his anger is directed at racial disparities, relative to the control condition. The interpretation is consistent with H4a; racialized anger from a Black male candidate is rewarded by community nationalists, perhaps because the behavior is perceived as advocating on behalf of the group. For the Black woman candidate, the interaction runs in the completely opposite direction ($b = -0.17$, $p < .10$). Community nationalism does not translate into additional support for her when she expresses the same racialized anger. If anything, community

nationalism attenuates support for the Black woman candidate when she expresses the same racialized anger as the Black male candidate.

The right panel illustrates the practical consequences of these divergent interactions. Among low-community nationalism Black respondents, the trajectories are initially counterintuitive: racialized anger produces a modest positive difference for the Black woman candidate relative to the control condition (0.12), while it slightly depressed support for the Black man (-0.11), a pattern consistent with ceiling effects among low-community nationalism respondents who already strongly support the Black man at baseline. As community nationalism rises, however, the trajectories cross. Among high-community nationalism respondents, the Black man's racialized anger produces a positive shift in support relative to the control condition 0.13, indicating that high-community nationalism respondents substantially reward his racialized anger relative to the control condition. The Black woman's racialized anger produces a negligible and slightly negative shift (-0.05), indicating that the modest boost she received among low-community nationalism respondents disappears, and marginally reverses among high-community nationalism respondents. Neither estimate for the Black woman candidate departs meaningfully from zero, but the crossing of the two trajectories captures the asymmetry precisely: community nationalism activates a reward for the Black man's racialized anger, but not for the Black woman's racialized anger.

We turn next to the second attitudinal moderator among Black respondents: perceived interconnectedness of sexism and racism (ICSR). Figure 5 presents these results in parallel with Figure 4. Panel A displays the ICSR x Angry + Race interaction coefficient for all four candidate types; Panel B displays how racialized anger shifts vote likelihood relative to the control condition at low (ICSR=0) and high (ICSR=1) perceived interconnectedness of sexism

and racism, separately for the Black woman and White woman candidates—the two theoretically relevant comparisons.



Note: Panel A = ICSR × Angry+Race interaction coefficients ± 95% CI for all four candidate types. Filled square = statistically significant ($p < .01$); open = $p > .10$. Panel B = change in predicted vote likelihood between the racialized anger condition and the control condition at low (ICSR=0) and high (ICSR=1); error bars = 95% CI. Positive values indicate racialized anger increases vote likelihood relative to control; negative values indicate a decrease. Solid line (■) = White woman candidate; dashed line (○) = Black woman candidate. Predictions derived from Appendix Table B6, cols 1–4. *** $p < .01$

Panel A reveals that only one candidate’s vote likelihood is significantly moderated by ICSR in the racialized anger condition: the White woman candidate ($b = 0.24$, $p < .01$). For the Black woman candidate, the interaction is negative and non-significant ($b = -0.11$, $p > .10$). The interactions for the Black man ($b = 0.06$) and White man ($b = -0.01$) are similarly indistinguishable from zero. The absence of a significant interaction for the Black woman is likely attributable to a ceiling effect—among high-ICSR respondents, support for the Black woman candidate is already extremely high at baseline, leaving little room for anger to further boost support. Panel B illustrates the practical consequences of these patterns. The Black

woman candidate's predicted vote likelihood in the racialized anger condition changes negligibly from low to high ICSR (0.07 at ICSR = 0, -0.04 at ICSR = 1), and neither estimate departs meaningfully from zero. The White woman candidate's trajectory is strikingly different. At low ICSR the White woman candidate's racialized anger slightly depresses support (-0.09), but at high ICSR it produces a substantial boost (0.15). This divergence is consistent with an allyship interpretation. High ICSR Black respondents appear to read a White woman's expression of racialized anger as a credible signal of solidarity with Black women's experiences of intersectional marginalization, and reward her accordingly.

Electability or Antipathy? Exploring Perceived Candidate Traits

The question remains: what drives these electoral decisions, particularly among Black voters? Extant scholarship indicates that a candidate's perceived electability can play a greater role in voters' decisions than the candidate's ideological proximity to the voter (Simas 2017). This is especially relevant in light of recent work revealing that Democratic primary voters perceive Black women candidates to be progressive, yet less electable (Chen and Sorensen 2025), thus eroding the electoral boost that Black women should receive for their perceived progressiveness.

Are our results reflecting a similar calculus, specifically among Black voters? Is the lack of a boost in electoral support for the Black woman candidate when she expresses racialized anger a reflection of their belief that a Black woman who expresses anger about racial injustice cannot win a statewide election? While the data do not allow us to provide a definitive answer to this question, we seek generative insight from examining how the treatment conditions affect participants' perceptions of candidate characteristics such as intelligence and likeability. Our results, displayed in Figures D1 and D2 in the Appendix D, indicate that across both White and

Black respondents, anger displays, regardless of whether they are racialized, produce small and statistically negligible shifts in trait ratings.

Both groups appear to maintain consistent assessments of the Black woman candidate's competence and character even as their likelihood of voting for her decreases in the racialized anger condition. While prior research points to electability concerns as a potential mechanism in voters' decision-making, our data do not directly measure perceptions of broader electoral viability; thus, we cannot determine whether strategic considerations or other unmeasured factors underlie these voting patterns. What the results clearly show is that anger expressions by the Black woman candidate affect electoral support without meaningfully altering underlying trait evaluations.

Discussion and Conclusion

This paper contributes to our understanding of how candidate race, gender, and anger interact to shape voter evaluations in the contemporary U.S. electorate. Our findings offer a nuanced picture of how intersectional identities and anger are interpreted by racially diverse electorates, and among voters with varying ideological orientations.

Among White respondents, we find that candidate anger does not generate uniform backlash. Instead, the content and source of the anger matter. Notably, Black male candidates are significantly penalized for expressing racialized anger, experiencing a seven-point drop in vote likelihood. In contrast, Black women are not penalized overall for expressing anger, racialized or not, suggesting that in the aggregate, they do not face a baseline anger penalty. However, this general null finding masks meaningful variation by racial attitudes: among racially resentful White voters, Black women who express anger, experience sharp declines in support. These declines are most pronounced among racially resentful White men, and especially when the

anger is racialized. The unique severity of the penalty among this group may reflect intersecting status threats: a Black woman's expression of racialized anger challenges both racial and gender hierarchies simultaneously, representing a threat to White male status along two dimensions at once. This is consistent with research on backlash to agentic women (Rudman and Glick 1999) operating in tandem with racial threat dynamics (Banks and White 2024; Stephens-Dougan 2020).

Among White women, we observe a striking divergence based on racial resentment. Racially liberal White women reward the Black woman candidate when she expresses non-racialized anger, while racially resentful White women severely penalize her. Yet even among racially liberal White women, this support is fragile: once the Black woman's anger becomes racialized, the boost disappears. This erosion of support underscores the conditionality of gender-based solidarity in contexts where race is salient. Black women candidates who express racialized anger may be uniquely limited in their capacity to draw racially liberal White women into their electoral coalition—a constraint that carries broader implications for the prospects of cross-racial gender solidarity (Junn 2017; Junn and Masuoka 2020).

Turning to Black respondents, our findings defy the prediction that Black candidates would be rewarded for expressing racialized anger (H3). Instead, we find no treatment effects for either the Black woman or Black man candidate on average, likely the result of ceiling effects, as both enjoy high baseline support. Interestingly, racialized anger increases support for the White woman candidate among High-ICSR Black respondents, consistent with an allyship interpretation rather than a co-racial solidarity cue.

Within the Black electorate, Figures 4 and 5 together reveal two distinct gender asymmetries. Community nationalists amplify support for the Black man when he expresses

racialized anger but provide no comparable boost for the Black woman expressing the same emotion, and if anything marginally attenuate it. ICSR, rather than rewarding the Black woman candidate for racialized anger, instead extends its rewarding effect to the White woman candidate, treating her racialized anger as a credible act of allyship. H4b is not supported; the significant ICSR moderation accrues to the White woman, not the Black woman. These patterns suggest that the emotional constraints on Black women candidates do not operate solely through White audiences and racial hostility—they are also reproduced within the Black electorate through expectations that differentially distribute the authority to embody racial grievance.

In sum, these findings reveal a racially asymmetric emotional double bind. White candidates remain emotionally unencumbered: their expressions of anger, racialized or not, do not reduce support. By contrast, Black candidates, and especially Black women, must navigate a precarious emotional terrain where support is contingent on both the identity of the voter and the perceived appropriateness of anger. Our study shows that anger is not universally disqualifying for Black women—but neither is it universally safe. While some constituencies respond favorably, the expression of racialized anger remains politically risky, particularly among racially resentful White voters, racially liberal White women, and certain segments within the Black electorate.

The political implications of our findings are especially acute for Black women navigating majority-White electorates. Anger has long served as a powerful political resource, used effectively by white male politicians, most notably President Donald Trump. Yet Black women are uniquely denied this political tool. This asymmetry means that Black women candidates, including those who have sought statewide or national office such as Kamala Harris, must perform a narrow emotional balancing act: projecting resolve and competence without

crossing an invisible threshold that risks backlash. The result is a structural disadvantage that limits their ability to respond forcefully to racial injustice, mobilize supporters, or claim authority.

More broadly, when certain candidates cannot safely express anger, the democratic system loses an important mode of political communication - one that has historically fueled accountability, protest, and transformative change. Our findings thus make clear that emotional inequality, or who may safely express anger and who may not, constitutes a real, measurable barrier to Black women's political viability. As American politics continues to grapple with questions of race, gender, and authenticity, candidates from marginalized backgrounds must continually calibrate their anger.

Future research should explore how these dynamics unfold in higher-information contexts, across partisan lines, and in real-world electoral settings, where candidates increasingly must choose between expressing moral outrage and maintaining electoral viability.

Ethics Statement

This study was reviewed and approved by the Institutional Review Board of University of Oklahoma. All participants provided informed consent prior to participation.

Funding Information

This study was supported by funding from the University of California at Irvine, University of Oklahoma ,and Princeton University.

References

- Alexander-Floyd, Nikol G. 2003. "We shall have our manhood": Black macho, Black nationalism, and the Million Man March. *Meridians: Feminism, Race, Transnationalism* 3 (2): 171–203.
- Banks, Antoine J., and Ismail K. White. 2024. *The anger rule: Racial inequality and constraints on Black politicians*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
<https://doi.org/10.1017/9781009275255>
- Banks, Antoine J., Ismail K. White, and Brian D. McKenzie. 2019. Black politics: How anger influences the political actions Blacks pursue to reduce racial inequality. *Political Behavior* 41: 573–599. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-018-9477-1>
- Beal, Frances M. 1969. *Double jeopardy: To be Black and female*. New York: Third World Women's Alliance.
- Blake, John. 2024. Kamala Harris is tapping into the Black Joy movement. *CNN*, August 25. <https://www.cnn.com/2024/08/25/politics/kamala-harris-black-joy-movement-cec/index.html>.
- Brader, Ted. 2005. *Campaigning for hearts and minds: How emotional appeals in political ads work*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
<https://doi.org/10.7208/chicago/9780226788302.001.0001>
- Brooks, Deborah Jordan. 2013. *He runs, she runs: Why gender stereotypes do not harm women candidates*. Princeton: Princeton University Press.
- Brown, Nadia E. 2014. *Sisters in the statehouse: Black women and legislative decision making*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Brown, Nadia E., and Danielle Casarez Lemi. 2021. *Sister style: The politics of appearance for Black women political elites*. New York: Oxford University Press.
- Carr, Sydney. 2025. Race, gender, and public opinion toward Black female political elites. *The Journal of Politics*. <https://doi.org/10.1086/736335>
- Cassese, Erin C. 2019. Intersectional stereotyping. In *The Oxford encyclopedia of political decision making*, ed. David Redlawsk and Zoe Oxley. New York: Oxford University Press.
<https://doi.org/10.1093/acrefore/9780190228637.013.773>
- Cassese, Erin C., and Mirya R. Holman. 2018. Party and gender stereotypes in campaign attacks. *Political Behavior* 40 (3): 785–807. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-017-9423-7>
- Center for American Women and Politics. 2025. Voters: Gender differences in voter registration and turnout. Rutgers University, Eagleton Institute of Politics.
<https://cawp.rutgers.edu/facts/voters/gender-differences-voter-turnout>.

Center for American Women and Politics, and Higher Heights Leadership Fund. 2025. *Black women in American politics 2025*. Rutgers University, Eagleton Institute of Politics. <https://cawp.rutgers.edu>.

Chen, Philip, and Ashley Sorensen. 2025. Raced-gendered electability: Support, donations, and Democratic double standards for Black women candidates. *Political Research Quarterly* 78 (3): 942–956. <https://doi.org/10.1177/10659129251331950>

CNN. 2010. Interview with President Barack Obama [transcript]. *CNN Larry King Live*, June 3. <https://www.cnn.com/2010/POLITICS/06/03/obama.lkl/index.html>.

Cohen, Cathy J. 1999. *The boundaries of Blackness: AIDS and the breakdown of Black politics*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Crenshaw, Kimberlé. 1991. Mapping the margins: Intersectionality, identity politics, and violence against women of color. *Stanford Law Review* 43 (6): 1241–1299. <https://doi.org/10.2307/1229039>

Crowder, Chaya. 2022. Doing more than thanking Black women: The influence of intersectional solidarity on public support for policies. *Journal of Women, Politics & Policy* 43 (3): 291–306. <https://doi.org/10.1080/1554477X.2022.2070831>

Crowder, Chaya, and Candis Watts Smith. 2020. From suffragists to pink pussyhats: In search of intersectional solidarity. *PS: Political Science & Politics* 53 (3): 490–493. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S1049096520000311>

Dowe, Pearl K. Ford. 2023. *The radical imagination of Black women: Ambition, politics, and power*. New York: Oxford University Press.

Eagly, Alice H., and Steven J. Karau. 2002. Role congruity theory of prejudice toward female leaders. *Psychological Review* 109 (3): 573–598. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0033-295X.109.3.573>

Frasure-Yokley, Lorrie. 2018. Choosing the velvet glove: Women voters, ambivalent sexism, and vote choice in 2016. *Journal of Race, Ethnicity, and Politics* 3 (1): 3–25. <https://doi.org/10.1017/rep.2017.35>

Garcia, Jennifer R., and Christopher T. Stout. 2022. The empowering effects of racial messaging: The link between racial outreach, descriptive representation and Black political mobilization. *Political Communication* 39 (5): 589–606. <https://doi.org/10.1080/10584609.2022.2084803>

Greenwood, Ronni Michelle. 2008. Intersectional political consciousness: Appreciation for intragroup differences and solidarity in diverse groups. *Psychology of Women Quarterly* 32 (1): 36–47. <https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.2007.00405.x>

Hancock, Ange-Marie. 2007. Intersectionality as a normative and empirical paradigm. *Politics & Gender* 3 (2): 248–254. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S1743923X07000062>

Harris-Perry, Melissa V. 2011. *Sister citizen: Shame, stereotypes, and Black women in America*. New Haven: Yale University Press.

Hassell, Hans J. G., and Neil Visalvanich. 2024. Perceptions of electability: Candidate (and voter) ideology, race, and gender. *Political Behavior* 46: 2075–2098.
<https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-023-09909-3>

Huddy, Leonie, Stanley Feldman, and Christopher Weber. 2007. The political consequences of perceived threat and felt insecurity. *The ANNALS of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 614 (1): 131–153. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0002716207305951>

Hutchings, Vincent L., Hanes Walton Jr., and Andrea Benjamin. 2010. The impact of explicit racial cues on gender differences in support for Confederate symbols and partisanship. *Journal of Politics* 72 (4): 1175–1188. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S0022381610000605>

Junn, Jane. 2017. The Trump majority: White womanhood and the making of female voters in the U.S. *Politics, Groups, and Identities* 5 (2): 343–352.
<https://doi.org/10.1080/21565503.2017.1304224>

Junn, Jane, and Natalie Masuoka. 2020. The gender gap is a race gap: Women voters in US presidential elections. *Perspectives on Politics* 18 (4): 1135–1145.
<https://doi.org/10.1017/S1537592719003876>

Kinder, Donald R., and Lynn M. Sanders. 1996. *Divided by color: Racial politics and democratic ideals*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Livingston, Robert W., and Nicholas A. Pearce. 2009. The Teddy-Bear effect: Does having a baby face benefit Black chief executive officers? *Psychological Science* 20 (10): 1229–1236.
<https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1467-9280.2009.02431.x>

Lumet, Sidney (director). 1976. *Network* [film]. Metro-Goldwyn-Mayer.

Marcus, George E., W. Russell Neuman, and Michael MacKuen. 2000. *Affective intelligence and political judgment*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Mikkelborg, Anna Caroline. 2025. White Democrats' growing support for Black politicians in the era of the "Great Awakening." *American Political Science Review* 119 (4): 1902–1920.
<https://doi.org/10.1017/S0003055425000097>

Phoenix, Davin L. 2019. *The anger gap: How race shapes emotion in politics*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press. <https://doi.org/10.1017/9781108641906>

Rudman, Laurie A., and Peter Glick. 1999. Feminized management and backlash toward agentic women: The hidden costs to women of a kinder, gentler image of middle managers. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* 77 (5): 1004–1010.
<https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.77.5.1004>

- Sesko, Amanda K., and Monica Biernat. 2010. Prototypes of race and gender: The invisibility of Black women. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology* 46 (2): 356–360. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jesp.2009.10.016>
- Simas, Elizabeth N. 2017. The effects of electability on US primary voters. *Journal of Elections, Public Opinion and Parties* 27 (3): 274–290. <https://doi.org/10.1080/17457289.2016.1270287>
- Simien, Evelyn M. 2005. Race, gender, and linked fate. *Journal of Black Studies* 35 (5): 529–550. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0021934704265899>
- Slaughter, Christine, Chaya Crowder, and Christina Greer. 2024. Black women: Keepers of democracy, the democratic process, and the Democratic Party. *Politics & Gender* 20 (1): 162–181. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S1743923X23000417>
- Smooth, Wendy. 2006. Intersectionality in electoral politics: A mess worth making. *Politics & Gender* 2 (3): 400–414. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S1743923X06261087>
- Stephens-Dougan, LaFleur. 2020. *Race to the bottom: How racial appeals work in American politics*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Stout, Christopher T., Davin Phoenix, Gregory Leslie, and Elizabeth Schroeder. 2025. Emotional representation: Identifying the characteristics and consequences of elected officials mirroring the emotions of their constituents. *Political Psychology*. Advance online publication. <https://doi.org/10.1111/pops.70102>
- Strawbridge, Michael G., Christopher J. Clark, Anna Mitchell Mahoney, and Nadia E. Brown. 2025. Rhetorical promises: Gender diversity among Congressional Black Caucus members' representation on Twitter. *Political Communication* 42 (3): 509–526. <https://doi.org/10.1080/10584609.2025.2454629>
- U.S. Census Bureau. 2025. Voting and registration in the election of November 2024. Current Population Survey. <https://www.census.gov/data/tables/time-series/demo/voting-and-registration/p20-589.html>.
- Valentino, Nicholas A., Ted Brader, Eric W. Groenendyk, Krysha Gregorowicz, and Vincent L. Hutchings. 2011. Election night's alright for fighting: The role of emotions in political participation. *The Journal of Politics* 73 (1): 156–170. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S0022381610000939>
- Van Kleef, Gerben A., and Carsten K. W. De Dreu. 2010. Longer-term consequences of anger expression in negotiation: Retaliation or spillover? *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology* 46 (5): 753–760. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jesp.2010.03.013>
- Wamble, Julian J. 2025. *We choose you: How Black voters decide which candidates to support*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Webster, Steven W. 2020. *American rage*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

[1] All candidates in the experiment are portrayed as Democrats, a design choice intended to make expressions of anger about racial disparities plausible.

[2] The pre-analysis plan can be accessed in our supplementary materials.
